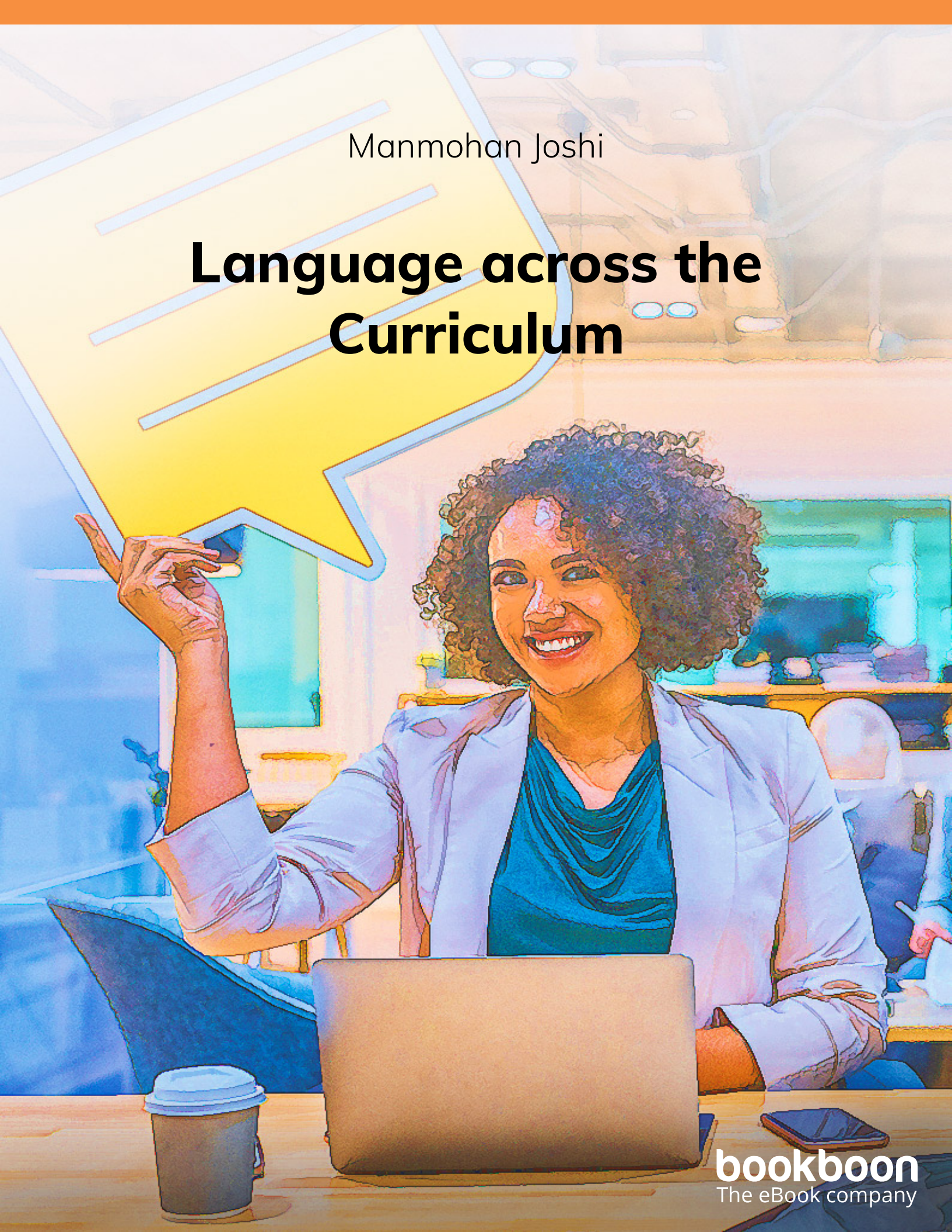


Manmohan Joshi

Language across the Curriculum



MANMOHAN JOSHI

LANGUAGE ACROSS THE CURRICULUM

Language across the Curriculum

1st edition

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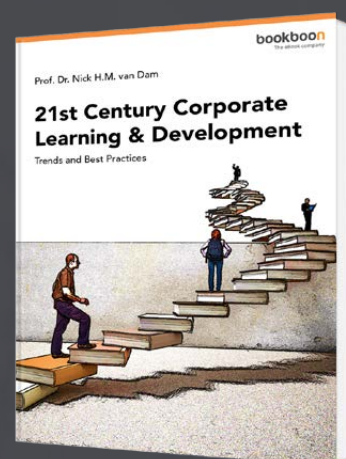
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1 LAC APPROACH

1.1 CONCEPT OF LAC

Language Across the Curriculum is related to linking different aspects of language education within school, and emphasises its importance in all non-linguistic subjects. The LAC approach integrates language learning and content learning in other subjects.

Language Across the Curriculum has two dimensions:

- **As a concept:** It accepts the fact that language education does not only take place in a specific subject but also in every other subject as well as activity.
- **As a policy:** It leads to new forms of language use in discourse and subject-specific linguistic competencies. The policy needs to address the issue of integrating competencies and subject-specific teaching.

The academic language skills and competencies have to be systematically stimulated and developed.

1.2 NEED AND IMPORTANCE OF LAC

Learning in various subjects depends upon language. At the same time language cannot be effectively learned without a context. Both are closely interrelated. While other subjects provide context for language, language development facilitates the learning of other subjects. To function well in the school, the young or adolescent learners need to be placed in an environment of LAC approach. It will help them to develop their thinking and communication skills leading to stressless work later in life. It is therefore necessary to integrate language and content of various subjects.

1.3 BENEFITS OF LAC

The following benefits are likely to accrue to various stake-holders:

- **For the school:** The school can reorganise its structure by formulating and implementing language policy across the curriculum. This will motivate teachers to work for a common goal.
- **For the teachers:** It will help the teachers to transact their curriculum more effectively.
- **For the students:** It will minimize their problems adjusting to the medium of instruction leading to better learning of the subject content.

1.4 ORIGINS OF LAC

LAC as a concept originated in Great Britain in the late 1970s and 1980s when this idea was promoted and recognized in the so-called Bullock Report which stated:

"Each school should have an organised policy for language across the curriculum, establishing every teacher's involvement in language and reading development throughout the years of schooling".

– (DES 1975: 514)

Later the Swann Report also advocated:

"Unless there is a school language and learning policy across the curriculum there will be wastage of effort and often confusion".

– (DES 1985: 419)

Another example of the LAC movement is that of the Writing Across the Curriculum (WAC) movement of the 1980s, which advocated the use of writing as a tool in classes outside the English department. It roots for inculcation of the skills required for writing in each curriculum specialisation. According to Fichera and Straight (1997), LAC works with faculty to identify specific vocabulary that students need to function effectively in various subjects.

Corson (1990) has specified the following attributes:

- Language develops mainly through its purposeful use.
- Learning involves talking, writing, shaping and moving.
- Learning often occurs through speaking or writing as much as through shaping and moving.
- Language use is a pre-requisite for cognitive development.
- Language is the medium for reflecting learning, for improving it, for becoming autonomous.

1.5 GOALS OF LAC

The goals of LAC approach can be identified thus:

- To support language development in the children;
- To guide the children in all domains of language use; and
- To include in each leaning activity at school.

It virtually means that LAC cannot be solely used in the conventional four modes of language use – Listening, Speaking, Reading, and Writing. This implies the use of this approach in all physical forms of human expression. Corson (1990) has outlined eight modes of activities involving language.

They are:

- **Listening:** understanding and oral discourse;
- **Speaking:** constructing meaningful utterances;
- **Reading:** comprehending written texts;
- **Writing:** producing written texts;
- **Viewing:** paying attention to visual information;
- **Shaping:** expressing through visual means;
- **Watching:** caring for movements;
- **Moving:** using the whole body.

There is a clear and close relationship between language and thinking, which vindicates the use of LAC. We can say that language:

- Does not mean only communication skills, rather it is more than that;
- Is linked to the process of thinking;
- Is a tool for linking information;
- Supports the cognitive domain;
- Helps to solve problems in de-contextualised manner; and
- Helps to provide structure to discourse.

1.6 DIFFICULTIES

There could be a number of difficulties in implementing LAC. They were observed particularly in countries like the UK, North America, India, etc.

Corson (1990) listed several practical difficulties in implementing LAC:

- The attitudes of teachers – particularly many subject teachers having to use one common language (not representing L1) for teaching their subjects;
- Resistance of subject teachers to becoming ‘language teachers’;
- No particular person being responsible for supporting cross-curriculum approach; and
- Lack of clear perception about what to do about language across the curriculum.

If LAC is to be introduced, there is a necessity for bringing about a radical change in the attitudes of teachers involved. Unless they are convinced that it is in their own interest as well in the interest of their students, they are not likely to fall in line.

In fact, teachers should define and set minimal goals in conceptual and discourse terms. This means that teachers have to require a high degree of information. They also need to develop their professional competence in terms of:

- Theory;
- Curriculum planning; and
- Teaching methodology.

2 FUNCTIONS OF LANGUAGE

2.1 BASIC FUNCTIONS OF LANGUAGE

Language functions in various different ways. However, following are the significant functions:

- **Information:** It transmits information from one person to another. It may be done orally or in written form.

Examples:

- *"We are going to visit the museum next week".*
- *"This watch costs \$500".*

If the same information is written on the board, language transmits it in a different form. Similarly, most of the language used in newspapers (written form) and in TV news (oral form) is informative in nature.

- **Expressive:** This is another function of language wherein words are used to express emotions, feelings and thoughts. Poetry is the best example of expressive language.

Example:

*"God, when you chiselled a raindrop,
How did you think of a stem?
Bearing a lovely satin leaf
To hold the tiny gem?"*

– Angela Morgan

*"There is a harmony in
autumn, and a lustre in its
sky, which through the
summer is not heard or seen,
As if it could not be, as if it
had not been!"*

– Percy Bysshe Shelley

The language used in the above lines expresses what the poets feel, and evokes emotions in the reader or listener.

- **Performative:** Here the words necessarily do not inform or express anything; rather they perform a function.

Examples:

- *"I regret I could not complete the work in time".*
- *"I'm grateful to you".*

Here the speaker is performing the function of 'regretting' and 'gratefulness'.

2.2 FUNCTIONS OF LANGUAGE INSIDE THE CLASSROOM

When a teacher interacts with students in a classroom situation they use language both in oral and written form and make use of all three dimensions of language – informative, expressive, and performative.



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In a teacher-student relationship, the functions of language have two dimensions:

- From the teacher's point of view; and
- From the students' point of view.

2.2.1 FROM THE TEACHER'S POINT OF VIEW

- They use language to provide a wide variety of information while discussing the contents of the subject.
- The language they use is not confined to dealing with the content alone; it helps in building character, developing positive attitude and desirable behaviour traits.
- They utilise language used by the students in order to know them, their strengths and weaknesses, their aptitude and preferences etc.
- Curriculum cannot be transacted unless a teacher uses language which is correct and appropriate to the situation, thus contributing to the learning environment.

2.2.2 FROM THE STUDENTS' POINT OF VIEW

- When a teacher teaches a subject, they do so through the language of communication, which helps them to grasp the information provided.
- Often there is group discussion in the classroom – or they are engaged in pair work – they share their thoughts with others through the language of communication and convey the results of their discussions using the language being used.
- The students use language to ask and answer questions.
- The students use the same language to sit the examination and here they use language in the written form.

It is significant to note that the content of each subject is in a particular language – in this case the language of communication. Hence the function of language in a classroom situation is of utmost importance.

2.3 FUNCTIONS OF LANGUAGE OUTSIDE THE CLASSROOM

When the students are in the classroom, they are in a controlled environment – interacting with known people (teacher and classmates), and so they pick up fast. On the other hand, when they are outside the classroom they interact with a wide variety of people asking and answering questions, and engaging in conversation on a variety of topics in different situations. For this purpose, they need a good command over the language so that they can be effective participants in a discussion that may range from personal information to what is happening in their environment as well as the whole world. These situations could be from among the following:

- Telling a story;
- Narrating an incident;
- Making a speech;
- Expressing feelings and thoughts;
- Providing information about self;
- Collecting information about others;
- Commenting on events;
- Enquiring about prices, timings etc.

What they learn in the classroom, they try to use similar language outside also e.g. greeting, welcoming, inquiring etc. In fact, the language used by them defines their social setting. Those who speak the same language in similar dialect are immediately able to be part of an acceptable social set-up and are able to use language effectively outside the classroom too.

3 MULTILINGUALISM

3.1 INTRODUCTION

The problem of multilingualism has been existing in various countries – particularly because of the presence of different ethnic groups both from within the country and from those who have migrated from other countries. This problem has been addressed in various countries in different ways – in some places there has been a partial solution (though not practically beneficial always) while in others it has proved to be a formidable one.

3.2 LANGUAGES IN DIFFERENT COUNTRIES

Almost every major country has the unique phenomenon of multilingualism. Given below are some examples.



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3.2.1 THE UNITED STATES

Many languages have been historically used in the United States. But the most commonly used and de facto language is English (specifically American English). Spanish is the second most common language and is spoken by approximately 35 million people. The other languages represented are German, Italian, Polish, French, Chinese etc., in addition to native American languages in some small pockets. In several states there is widespread use of bilingualism. In spite of this, education at school and college level is mostly provided through the English language.

3.2.2 BRITAIN

In Britain, different parts of the country have their own way of speaking English. People in Yorkshire sound very different to people in Surrey. People in Wales speak a completely different language. About 25 per cent of the people there still speak in their native tongue Welsh. In some regions of Scotland, Gaelic is used as the first language. More than 300 different languages are spoken in British schools. Efforts are made to ensure that the English language is used as medium of instruction in schools.

3.2.3 CANADA

Officially Canada is a bilingual country, with both English and French recognized as national languages. There are a host of non-official languages spoken in the country, ranging from German and Spanish to Punjabi (one of the Indian languages) and Chinese. However, English is the most prominent language spoken there though a large number of people are bilingual and are fluent in both French and English.

3.2.4 GERMANY

Though the major language is German, there are four official minority languages – Danish, Frisian, Romanian, and Sorbian.

In 2012 it was observed that there was weak performance of 15-year-old students in reading comprehension and it could only be overcome and changed if language would become a focus of concern in each and every subject in school. This led to a debate on the issue of LAC but it did not last long nor did it lead to any specific measures or focused pedagogical activities in the school which were challenged and burdened with so many other things that have rendered it difficult to think and act in a cross-curricular way.

3.2.5 SWITZERLAND

Switzerland's four official languages, traditionally spoken in different regions of the country, are German, French, Italian and Romansch. These regions do, however, overlap just a little: German is being used parallel to Romansch in Romansch areas and parallel to French in the bilingual cities along the language border in western Switzerland.

3.2.6 CHINA

In China there are at least eight different linguistic groups, in addition to hundreds of dialects and variations. Most of the time they are not mutually understandable. However, the official language is Mandarin Chinese; besides this, there are other versions: Wu

3.2.7 INDIA

In India, there are 1652 mother tongues classified into 193 languages. However, 18 languages are officially recognized. Though each state has its own regional language as official language, Hindi is the official language of the country. However, English is the de-facto official language used for communication, business, education and governance – making it convenient to link the various linguistic regions.

A significant feature of Indian multilingualism is that it is complementary. Thus, an individual may use a particular language at home, another in the neighbourhood, and still another in certain formal domains such as education, administration, and the like.

In the area of school education, Government-run schools use the regional language as medium of instruction while in privately-run schools English is the medium. However, tertiary education uses English. This multiplicity creates lots of problems of communication for students.

3.3 TYPES OF MULTILINGUALISM

There are two types of multilingualism:

- **Additive:** Learning of second language does not interfere with first language.
- **Substantive:** Learning of second language does interfere with first language.

3.4 WAYS OF ACQUISITION

These can be classified into three categories:

- **Successive:** Learning another language after already knowing one.
- **Simultaneous:** Learning two languages as 'first language' e.g. infants exposed to two languages from birth.
- **Receptive:** Having the ability to understand a second language but not speaking or not being able to speak e.g. listening to English at work but going back to home language with family and friends.

3.5 NEED FOR MULTILINGUALISM

In today's global environment there is a great need for multilingualism. It will help in the following areas:

- Personal growth;
- Communication for business;
- Job mobility;
- Study abroad;
- Increase in vocabulary and speech;
- Tolerance and respect towards other cultures.

4 THEORIES OF DEFICIT AND DISCONTINUITY

4.1 INTRODUCTION

In certain situations, it was observed that there were deficiencies in success rates of lower socio-economic cases. Consequently, some researchers postulated that this happened because there was not sufficient verbal foundation in the home for success. Moreover, these children are prone to linguistic deprivation and often may experience psychological problems. Eller (1989) has remarked:

"All children who enter school are highly competent language users, but their language may be perceived as deficient".

This is so because of language and cultural diversity; they may not always be in a position to demonstrate their abilities.

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4.2 DEFICIT THEORY

According to the deficit theory of education, students who are different from the acceptable norm are to be considered deficient. To rectify this situation, the educational process must attempt to correct these deficiencies.

The deficit theory suggests that:

- A child who differs from those who usually succeed has some deficiency;
- There should be an effort to find remedies for such problems, and not concentrate only on those who bring their strengths to the classroom.

4.2.1 DIALECT BARRIERS

Various researches indicate that there are language differences between economically privileged children and those who are brought up in poverty. Children coming from economically backward background use a dialect different from the others. Their dialect reflects on how they have been brought up at home. Their communication patterns are learned in their neighbourhood, and this situation is quite different from those who have been brought up in educated, economically sound and culturally affluent background.

4.2.2 CAUSES AND REMEDIES

The causes of deficit need to be addressed by the teachers and they should make a substantial effort to remedy the situation. They need to introspect on the following:

- Teachers should be satisfied with concise answers rather than expecting complete sentences in answer to questions.
- Differentiation must be done between:
 - **Inherent incompetence** which is existing with them and can be overcome by transacting the curriculum from the beginning stage; and
 - **Produced incompetence** which they show through their negligence and can be rectified by encouraging them to pay desired attention to the task and lesson at hand.
- Teachers must not expect every child to have the same competency level and behavioural pattern as if they have come from the same background. All of them need to be treated according to their inherited traits, and gradually integrated into the main stream.

- Teachers should not reject any child simply because of linguistic difference. It is the responsibility of the teacher to devise ways and means to overcome these deficiencies.
- Teachers should use the human resources in the classroom. The bilingual students may be utilised to translate the teacher's talk and explanation for those who have language deficiency – at least at the initial stage till the deficient students start comprehending teacher's language.
- Audio visual aids may be used regularly in order to help overcome phonological barriers.
- No comparison should be made between the linguistically strong and weak students.

4.3 DISCONTINUITY THEORY

There are two major theories about the development of people. They are:

- **Continuity theory:** According to this theory, development is a continuous process, and it happens gradually and not in one day. The proponents of this theory believe that the evolution of language must have happened in a gradual manner. Different features of language may have developed in different stages starting from the earliest humans, and with time may have developed into the patterns we see today.
- **Discontinuity theory:** Theorists of this category believe that language is a unique phenomenon and must have appeared suddenly during the process of human evolution. Noam Chomsky (1960s) is the most prominent advocate of this theory. He believed that there might have been a single mutation around 100,000 years ago, and an individual might have been imbued with 'near perfect' language faculty. Further development might then have continued.

5 THEORIES OF LANGUAGE DEVELOPMENT

5.1 INTRODUCTION

To study and analyse the process of language acquisition various theories have emerged over a period of time. Among these there are four main schools of thought that provide theoretical paradigms of language acquisition.

These are:

- **Behaviourism:** It is based on behavioural approach.
- **Mentalist:** It is based on rationalistic or mentalist approach.
- **Cognition:** It is based on cognitive psychological approach.
- **Maternal input:** It is based on maternal approach to language acquisition.



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5.2 MAIN THEORIES

The two main theories that have influenced educationists are:

- Behaviourist; and
- Mentalist.

5.2.1 BEHAVIOURIST THEORY

According to B. F. Skinner (1938), who put forward this theory, a child acquires language with external force. They learn from the environment surrounding them.

He compared babies to 'empty vessels' into which language had to be put in. Moreover, he also considered language as a cognitive behaviour, and asserted that the child could be conditioned through the process which he called 'operant conditioning'.

- **Operant conditioning:** A child goes through a process of trial and error. When they try to use language, and when they fail they continue to try until they succeed. It does not usually happen by itself but is acquired because of reinforcement provided by the parents' gestures (smile, attention and approval) which give pleasure to the child. Skinner differentiated between two types of verbal response a child makes:
 - Verbal behaviour that is reinforced by the child getting something it wants; and
 - Verbal behaviour caused by imitating others (family members, visitors etc.)

To substantiate this theory, Skinner carried out an experiment on a rat. He kept the rat in a box within which he had fixed a bar. When the rat pushed the bar accidentally, it was served with food. The next time it pushed the bar, food was again given. From the repetition of pushing the bar and getting the food the rat learned that whenever it wanted food it must push the bar. Later the task was made a little difficult. A flashlight was attached, which made the rat learn that each time light flashed, it got food.

Skinner deduced that in the same manner a child learns what the society wants them to learn. We can say that a child imitates no matter what they hear from the parents, and hence it can be surmised that language learning is an act of acquisition.

According to this concept, stimulus carries a response followed by reinforcement resulting in repetition. For example, a stimulus is produced when a baby feels hungry or lonely. The baby cries in response. Reinforcement is provided when the mother gives food or comforts them. There is repetition if the same process happens again. In this way, the baby learns new behaviour that every time they feel hungry or lonely, they cry.

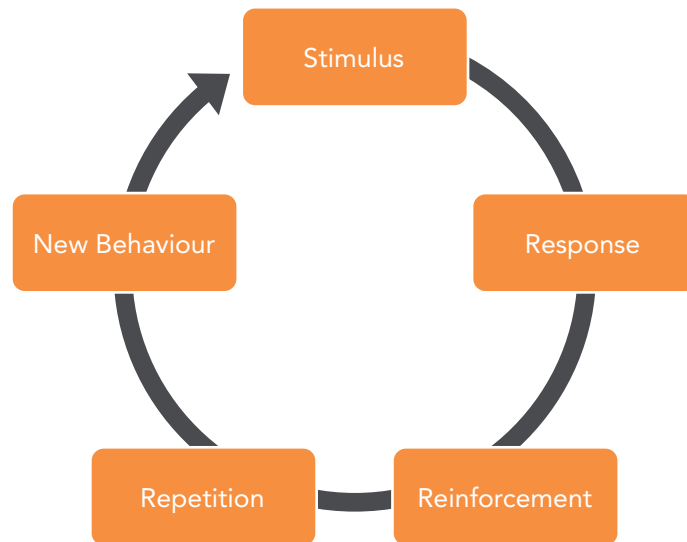


Fig. 5/1 Skinner's Stimulus-Response Theory

Reinforcement could be of two types:

- **Positive reinforcement:** Positive reinforcement results in increase of repetition process. For example, when a child cries for candy, they receive the candy and learn that crying results in reward in the form of candy.
- **Negative reinforcement:** Negative reinforcement results in reduction of the repetition process. For example, a child cries for candy but they are slapped. They learn that slap is the consequence of crying. As a result, the child ceases crying for the accomplishment of their desires.

According to behaviourist theory, language acquisition is a process of habit formation through stimulus-response model, as presented by Skinner.

According to him:

- A child imitates the sounds and patterns they hear from around them.
- People recognize the child's attempts as being similar to the adult models, and reinforce the sounds by approval or reward.
- To obtain more of these rewards/approvals, the child repeats the sounds and patterns, so that these become habits.
- In this way the child's behaviour is conditioned until the habits coincide with the adult models.

Children learn the language in the following steps:

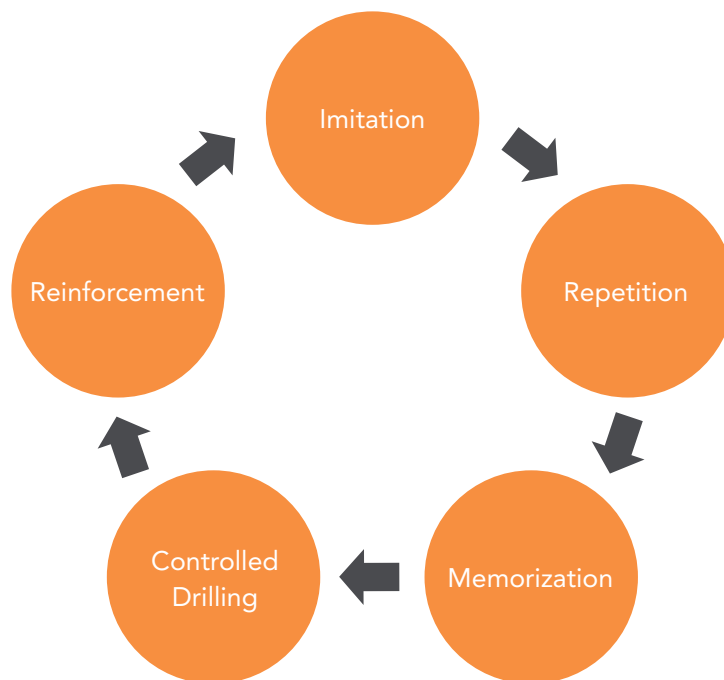


Fig. 5/2 Process of learning

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The operant conditioning proposed by Skinner is based on four elements:

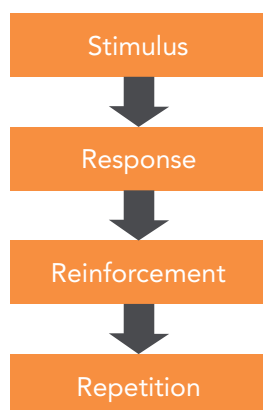


Fig. 5/3 Elements of Operant Conditioning

This can be further explained thus:



Fig. 5/4 Stages of Operant Conditioning

❖ **Limitation of behaviourist theory:**

- Children cannot always repeat what the adults say, particularly if the structure is one they have not yet started to use.
- It has been observed that parents usually do not reinforce correct grammar; rather they focus on the accuracy of statements.
- It is a critical period for language acquisition. Children who fail to acquire language by the age of about seven will not really acquire it fully later too.

5.2.2 MENTALIST THEORY

Noam Chomsky (1938), who presented 'Mentalist Theory', believed that a child acquires learning with their cognitive ability, and where ecological factors are not disturbed in language learning.

He argues that:

- Language acquisition is the function of the human brain;
- It is the brain that controls the interpretation and production of speech; and
- Children do not need formal teaching to learn to speak.

Chomsky outlined the following factors to support his theory:

- A child is most likely to learn a language (within their grasp fluency) between the ages of 3 and 7.
- A child begins to learn language at their own. Nobody needs to coax them to speak.
- A child grasps the language in the same manner and speaks the same way. However, at one stage, a child makes things plural that are already plural e.g. 'peoples' for 'people'.

Chomsky asserted that man is superior to animals in all aspects of life. The principle derived by Skinner through experiments on animals cannot be applied to language acquisition by children.

He further stated that:

- Human beings possess the power of thinking while animals do not.
- They have a strong cognitive ability because of which they store vocabulary and use it for construction of sentences. As a matter of fact, a child:
 - First learns words in isolation,
 - Then uses unfinished sentences (groups of words),
 - Finally uses them in sentence structures, and that too, without knowing the rules of grammatical structure.
- We can say that language is a matter of maturation rather than imitation.

❖ Limitations of Mentalist theory:

This theory is almost impossible to prove because we cannot allow somebody to be insulated just to do a research.

5.3 SIMILARITIES AND DIFFERENCES IN SKINNER'S AND CHOMSKY'S THEORY

5.3.1 SIMILARITIES

- Both talk about how human beings acquire language and develop grammatical structure.
- Subject of their study is children.

5.3.2 DIFFERENCES

Skinner's Theory	Chomsky's Theory
The process of learning involves a correct form of reinforcement of another stimulus.	It is an innate biological ability, and that every child has a language acquisition device.
A child is like a blank slate that is filled up by knowledge gained through experience.	It is the innate learning mechanism that enables the child to acquire language.

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5.4 CONCLUSION

Environmental factors play a crucial role in both theories:

- According to Skinner, a child learns by imitation and reinforcement that comes from the environment.
- Chomsky believes that a child's biological endowments make them acquire knowledge as long as there are people to speak to them.

6 SOCIAL STIMULATION

6.1 INTRODUCTION

The social behaviour of human beings can be categorised in two classes:

- Behaviour which affords stimulation to others; and
- Behaviour which is responsible for making responses to such stimulation.

6.2 BODY LANGUAGE

When you speak before an audience, you send out two kinds of messages:

- Voice transmits a verbal message;
- Another message is conveyed through physical appearance and body language.

People in the audience not only listen to the verbal message but are also impressed – or otherwise – by what they see. Positive body language can be an effective tool for ensuring:

- Adding emphasis and clarity to words;
- Convincing the audience of the speaker's:
 - Sincerity,
 - Earnestness, and
 - Enthusiasm.

However, using inappropriate body language may result in:

- Distracting the audience;
- Confusing them about the real meaning of words spoken and the projected meaning (through body language).

6.3 USING BODY LANGUAGE EFFECTIVELY

Non-verbal tools can be very effectively used to emphasise the verbal message.

6.3.1 ELIMINATE DISTRACTING MANNERISMS

When you speak before an audience, your mannerisms need to match your spoken language, and when it happens, nobody notices them. On the other hand, if you use postures and gestures not relevant to the spoken words, the attention of the audience goes towards those mannerisms with the result that the impact of words gets lost. The listeners get distracted by such mannerisms resulting in loss of attention to the spoken words.

Some common mannerisms could be from among the following:

- Continuous pacing the stage/platform;
- Rocking and swaying;
- Gripping the lectern or mike with force;
- Adjusting hair or clothing;
- Unwanted excessive hand movements, etc.



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6.3.2 BE NATURAL AND CONVERSATIONAL

You must adopt a natural conversational style – whatever the size of audience may be. Speaking in loud voice, raising the pitch – as in a political or religious rally – is not favoured these days. You must speak to a large audience just as you were to speak to a single person or a small group. The tone should be as natural as if speaking with friends or family members.

6.3.3 SYNC PHYSICAL MOVEMENTS AND WORDS

Let your body show that you believe in what you are saying, and you are there to share those beliefs and ideas. When you speak with a firm conviction, your positive body language will normally and visibly support what you are saying. Give an impression that you are speaking out a prepared speech but are doing so spontaneously.

6.3.4 BUILD AND PROJECT SELF-CONFIDENCE

Prepare yourself well before a speaking assignment. When you are well-prepared, you will not be searching for words or ideas in front of the audience. Words and ideas will flow smoothly. This will show your sincerity, enthusiasm and earnestness. This confidence will not come naturally. You may have to practise diligently.

6.4 GESTURES

Your body movements convey a particular thought or emotion in conjunction with verbal message. These movements could be a shrug of the shoulder, raised eyebrows, nodding the head, postures of hands and legs etc.

Quite a few speakers find it difficult to manage their hand movements. They do not know what to do with them; often they keep them in their pockets, behind their backs, or wave them frantically. Often this shows either nervousness or it is because of the cultural influence as the use of gestures varies in different cultures. For example, people in Southern Europe and the Middle East use their hands freely, while in some other cultures they use them in a subdued way.

Whatever gestures the speakers use they must reinforce the verbal message. Since gestures are very prominently visible to the audience, they can either add positive impact, or can distract the audience in case of excessive and unnecessary use.

6.4.1 NEED FOR GESTURES

Speakers can make very effective use of gestures in the following ways:

- **Support to words:** Gestures help the audience to understand the speaker's verbal message.
- **Dramatization of ideas:** Gestures provide a visual dramatization of ideas being expressed through the verbal message.
- **Reduction in nervousness:** If a speaker has some nervous tension, gestures unconsciously help in relieving it.
- **Stimulation of audience participation:** Gestures help in the process of active interaction with the audience – thus enhancing their participation.

6.4.2 TYPES OF GESTURES

Gestures can be broadly categorized as follows:

- **Descriptive:** They help in clarifying ideas, comparisons and contrasts, shape, number, location, function etc.
- **Emphatic:** They emphasise the spoken words and are an indication of the speaker's conviction.
- **Suggestive:** They symbolise ideas and emotions. For example, an open palm suggests the idea of giving or receiving, while a shrug of the shoulders is an indicator of ignorance or being perplexed.
- **Prompts:** When a speaker wants a response what they want, such gestures prompt the audience, for example, raising hands, clapping or any other such movement.

6.5 FACIAL EXPRESSIONS

Facial expressions can make a positive contribution to the effectiveness of communication. On the other hand, undesirable facial expression – used advertently or inadvertently – may cause barriers to effective communication.

A speaker's face communicates their feelings, emotions and attitudes. A variety of facial expressions can demonstrate a number of distinct feelings such as surprise, happiness, interest, anger, disgust, nervousness etc.

To present yourself in a desirable way it is necessary to eliminate distracting and unwanted mannerisms, for example, licking or biting the lips, raising eyebrows, raising corners of the mouth etc.

6.6 EYE CONTACT

Your eyes are a powerful tool for communicating. When you speak you need to have an eye contact with your listeners. However large an audience may be, you should be able to maintain eye contact. If you fail to do so, you break the invisible thread of contact with your audience. This also helps to gauge audience reaction and you may be able to modify the use of various words and phrases.

6.7 SPEECH ARTICULATION

To ensure that your speech is interesting and absorbing to the audience you need to take care of the following:

- **Pitch variation:** Vary the frequencies of your voice in order to engage the audience.
- **Volume:** You need to lower or raise the volume of your voice depending on the size of the audience. Particular care has to be taken when you are using a microphone.
- **Pauses:** If you want to emphasise some words or phrases, pause briefly before and after such expressions.



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- **Speed variation:** When you want to emphasise a particular point, you need to slow down your rate of speech strategically.
- **Show confidence:** Speak confidently without repeating words and phrases or having unnecessary pauses.
- **Rhythm:** Speak conversationally and naturally. It will have a better effect on the audience.

6.8 ALPHABET AND PRONUNCIATION

- A = [eɪ] (a-n-d, a-f-t-e-r, a-p-p-l-e)
- B = [bi:] (b-a-n-a-n-a, b-a-t-h-r-o-o-m, b-o-y)
- C = [si:] (c-a-r, c-o-a-t, c-o-l-o-u-r)
- D = [di:] (d-o-g, d-r-e-a-m, d-o-l-l-a-r)
- E = [i:] (e-l-e-p-h-a-n-t, e-y-e, e-x-t-r-e-m-e)
- F = [ɛf] (f-i-n-g-e-r, f-o-u-r, f-i-r-e)
- G = [dʒi:] (g-i-r-a-f-f-e, g-i-r-l, g-r-e-e-n)
- H = [eltʃ] (h-o-t-e-l, h-a-p-p-y, h-o-l-i-d-a-y)
- I = [aɪ] (i-m-a-g-e, i-s-l-a-n-d, I-n-d-i-a-n-a)
- J = [dʒeɪ] (j-u-n-g-l-e, j-o-l-l-y, J-o-s-e-p-h-i-n-e)
- K = [keɪ] (k-a-n-g-a-r-o-o, k-o-a-l-a, k-a-r-a-t-e)
- L = [ɛl] (l-o-w, l-e-v-e-l, l-i-o-n)
- M = [ɛm] (m-o-t-h-e-r, m-o-m-e-n-t, m-e-s-s)
- N = [ɛn] (n-o, n-i-g-h-t, n-o-o-n)
- O = [oʊ] (o-l-d, o-b-j-e-c-t, o-a-t)
- P = [pi:] (p-e-n-g-u-i-n-e, p-i-a-n-o, p-a-c-k-e-t)
- Q = [kju:] (q-u-i-e-t, Q-u-e-e-n, q-u-o-t-e)
- R = [ɑr] (r-e-d, r-i-g-h-t, r-a-b-b-i-t)
- S = [ɛs] (s-t-r-o-n-g, s-e-v-e-n, s-i-l-v-e-r)
- T = [ti:] (t-e-a, t-h-o-u-s-a-n-d, t-w-o)
- U = [ju:] (u-s-e, u-n-f-a-i-r, u-n-d-e-r)
- V = [vi:] (v-a-c-a-t-i-o-n, v-e-r-y, v-a-m-p-i-r-e)
- W = ['dʌbəl ju:] say: double-ju (w-e-s-t, w-o-r-m, w-h-i-t-e)
- X = [ɛks] (X-r-a-y, x-y-l-o-p-h-o-n-e, X-m-a-s)
- Y = [waɪ] (y-a-r-d, y-e-l-l-o-w, y-e-a-h)
- Z = [zɛd] in British English, [zi:] in American English (z-e-r-o, z-e-b-r-a, z-i-l-l-i-o-n)

7 LANGUAGE DEVELOPMENT AND SPEECH DISORDER

7.1 INTRODUCTION

Language development takes place in the following order:

- Looking and listening
- Playing
- Understanding
- Talking
- Pronunciation

Fig. 7/1 below shows this progression.

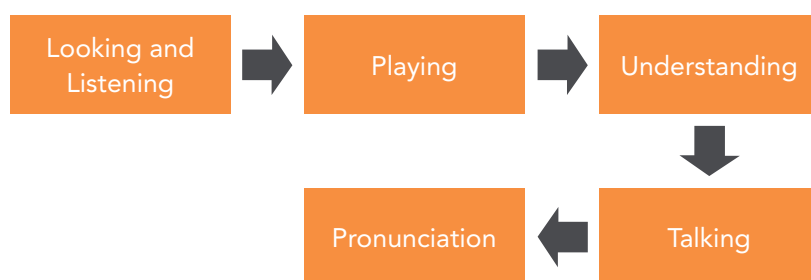


Fig. 7/1 Order of language development

7.1.1 STAGES OF DEVELOPMENT

Age	Development
0 - 3 months	• Can recognize familiar and unfamiliar voices. • Can make meaningless sounds to communicate.
4 – 6 months	• Can recognize commands. • Starts producing sounds.
7 – 12 months	• Starts recognizing simple vocabulary for objects they see. • Starts speaking first words.
1 – 3 years	• Can respond to simple questions and commands.
3 – 5 years	• Most children can understand, respond, and express regarding things, ideas already learned.

7.1.2 HOW TO FACILITATE LANGUAGE DEVELOPMENT

At the initial stages of child's language development parents are the best facilitators. They need to:

- Respond to the child with sensitivity;
- React positively to all types of sounds produced by the child;
- Talk to the child frequently – almost their every waking moment;
- Draw the child's attention for interacting;
- Ask questions – simple everyday questions – and listen to responses attentively;
- Read to the child – preferably keeping the book (having colourful pictures) – in front of the child;
- Sing to the child frequently.

7.2 COGNITIVE DEVELOPMENT

Early childhood is the period when a child experiences amazing physical as well as mental growth. The following cognitive abilities continue to emerge throughout childhood:



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- Memory
- Reasoning
- Problem solving
- Thinking

During the development process one passes through the following stages:

- Sensory-motor stage (Birth to 2 years)
- The Pre-operational stage (2 to 6 years)
- The Concrete Operational stage (7 to 11 years)
- The Formal Operational stage (12 years to adulthood)

7.3 LANGUAGE DISORDER

Language and speech disorder could be of two types:

- **Expressive disorder:** Child is not able to transmit to others.
- **Receptive disorder:** Child finds it difficult to understand the message from others.

In rare cases, both types of disorder can be noticed.

Causes:

- Autistic Spectrum disorder
- Hearing loss
- Damage to central nervous system (aphasia)
- Lack of intelligence

Symptoms:

- Problem in following directions
- Attention deficit
- Reading difficulty
- Not able to rhyme words
- Inconsistent performance

Treatment:

- Speech and language therapy
- Psychological therapy

7.3.1 APHASIA

This results from damage to parts of the brain that control language. It can affect any or all of these: listening, speaking, reading, and writing.

It could be of the following types:

- **Expressive:** Child has problem in using words, phrases and sentences.
- **Receptive:** Child finds it difficult to understand others.
- **Global:** Child has problem using words as well as understanding.

7.3.2 LISPING

This disorder creates obstacles in a person's ability to talk clearly and coherently. It may be triggered by:

- Unusual delay in development
- Hearing problem
- Accident
- Defects in any body part

Types:

- **Lateral lisp:** Tongue is in the same position as when producing the 'L' sound.
- **Palatal lisp:** The middle of the tongue is in contact with the soft palate.
- **Inter-dental lisp:** The tongue comes in between the front teeth and air is pushed forward.

7.3.3 AUTISM

This disorder is a complex disability which typically appears during the first three years and affects a person's ability to interact. It may be caused by:

- Genetic factors;
- Environmental factors.

An autistic person shows the following symptoms:

- Unusual delay in spoken language;
- Lack (or very little) of eye contact;
- No interest in peer relationships;
- No interest in spontaneous role play.

7.3.4 STUTTERING OR STAMMERING

It refers to involuntary verbal disorder which is demonstrated through:



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- Repetitions of sounds;
- Blocked speech;
- Elongated speech;
- Long pauses between words and sounds;
- Fillers (um, uh).

These disorders manifest themselves more when the child is excited, tired, talking about complex topics or ideas, asking or answering questions. There could be various factors responsible for these disorders, such as:

- Genetics;
- Cognitive processing ability;
- Environmental influence.

This condition can be improved upon very effectively through suitable psychological therapy.

7.4 ROLE OF TEACHER

The role of a teacher is quite significant in dealing with children who have some sort of language or speech disorder.

7.4.1 SETTING

Teachers can help in resolving such disorder by:

- Interacting with these children in the class using everyday language inherent in their day-to-day experience, and interacting with them informally also outside the classroom;
- Using structured settings such as plain walls, limited sensory input, bolder text size and colours etc;
- Keeping unwanted noise away from the vicinity of the classroom so that such children are not distracted;
- Maintaining language consistency between the school and home environments – by having a close interaction with parents.

7.4.2 CURRICULUM AND CLASSROOM ACTIVITIES

The teacher needs to pay special attention to the curriculum and classroom activities which will help such children. They could do so by:

- Encouraging them to recite rhymes and sentences with alliteration such as “*She sells sea shells on the sea shore*”;
- Using reading material that contains child’s familiar vocabulary;
- Using multi-sensory modes of teaching which integrate visual, auditory, kinaesthetic and tactile components;
- Encouraging them to participate in board games and turn-taking – also using telephones;
- Giving direct instructions regarding greetings, asking questions, making requests, asking for help, passing on messages to others etc;
- Using ‘Pause, Prompt, Praise’ method, giving them time to think and respond resulting in praise from the teacher.

7.4.3 GENERAL STRATEGIES

The teacher could make use of any or all of the following strategies:

- Provide sufficient opportunities for communicating;
- Model appropriate language;
- Avoid drawing attention to errors; rather provide clear models in response;
- Provide forced alternative e.g. “*Would you like to haveor.....?*”
- Avoid focusing on the behaviour; instead help in building language competency;
- Focus on the child and not on the action, for example, say, “*Frankie, come over here, please*” instead of “*Please come over here, Frankie*”.
- Encourage the child to communicate in any way they want to; gestures and actions will naturally move on to words with the teacher’s help.

7.4.4 STRATEGIES FOR IMPROVING SEMANTICS

The following strategies could be used to improve children’s semantics (meanings of words and word relationships):

- Encourage to classify pictures into categories, and name them;
- Assign sentence completion tasks e.g. “*I drive a car and I fly an* ”.
- Use word-retrieval cues:

- Name the category (e.g. types of cars, insects)
- Synonyms (e.g. *"Another name for lady is"*)
- Antonyms
- Associate word (e.g. bread and butter, bread and omelette)
- Beginning of sounds
- Rhyming words
- Multiple choices
- Use word association tasks:
 - Free association: *"Name as many things as you can think of in one minute"*.
 - Controlled association: *"Name as many vegetables as you can think of in one minute"*.
 - Recalling synonyms and antonyms.

7.4.5 STRATEGIES FOR IMPROVING ARTICULATION

- Create a warm and supportive environment in which the child feels accepted and encouraged to communicate.
- Provide ample listening activities that develop awareness of sounds.

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7.4.6 HOW TO HELP RESOLVE STUTTERING

The teacher should:

- Show support and not criticize;
- Talk to the child frequently outside the classroom also to make them feel wanted and comfortable;
- Speak slowly and clearly;
- Use short and simple sentences;
- Allow them time to respond;
- Praise frequently when they succeed;
- Reduce debating activities for such children;
- When reading aloud, allow them to read along with another student;
- Pay attention to their message rather than speed pattern.

8 THE IMPORTANCE OF ORAL LANGUAGE

8.1 INTRODUCTION

Though oral language refers to communicating with other people, it means ability to speak a particular language for complete expression of ideas. It involves thinking, knowledge, and skills.

Though children acquire oral language in a natural process, they require particular attention and practice in order to develop competency with regard to fluency and sensitivity. To help children achieve this, teachers have a major role to play.

8.2 IMPORTANCE OF ORAL LANGUAGE

Oral language is the foundation for student learning, and is critical for classroom-based learning. However, the competency level of various students differs from the expectations of the curriculum.

The students who have oral language difficulty require a special language support programme. This programme initiated and implemented by teachers can lead to enhanced student learning in the following areas:

- Listening comprehension;
- Language for expression;
- Vocabulary;
- Phonetics;
- Grammar;
- Social language;
- Retention of information.

8.2.1 ORAL LANGUAGE AS FOUNDATION

The development of children's learning and thinking is directly linked to oral language which provides a foundation for the development of other language skills. It is through speech that children express themselves – talking about their likes and dislikes, fears, experiences, aspirations, ambitions etc. This is how they try to organise their thinking. If oral language is neglected, it adversely affects the overall development of all aspects of language skills.

Research on cognitive development has emphasised that oral language skills are essential for all intellectual activity and communication of ideas coherently and effectively.

8.2.2 WRONG ASSUMPTIONS ABOUT ORAL LANGUAGE

It has been observed that most of the time oral language in the classroom is used by the teachers and students are just passive listeners. This happens because of the following assumptions (which of course are wrong):

- The teacher's role is to teach i.e. to talk in the class. This hampers the overall learning of students as they hardly get an opportunity to speak and practise oral language.
- It is assumed that children have already acquired oral language before starting school, and therefore, the primary learning tasks for them are reading and writing.

These wrong assumptions lead to a passive learning environment. They also fail to learn how to think critically and make sound judgments on their own.



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8.3 CONSIDERATIONS FOR ELLS

English Language Learners (ELLs) need to be provided opportunities on a daily basis to practise oral English so that their literacy skills may develop. They need to be able to listen to the language around them in order to figure out what the speaker's words refer to in a particular context. Depending on their existing abilities it may take a short time or longer.

It is important to note that:

- Initially these learners listen and observe more than they speak. Even though they may be fluent and comfortable in using English for greetings and other routine interpersonal situations, they might speak hesitantly when constructing English sentences to express complex ideas. Obviously, they need more time to process the meaning and form a response. Teachers need to be patient with such students.
- They may have problems with grammatical patterns, intonation etc., and so may be self-conscious in speaking out in the class. They could be put in small groups where they might be less conscious and open up freely.
- They may over-use high frequency words like 'nice' or 'go', and it may take some time to acquire more differentiated words such as 'beautiful', 'delicious'. 'pretty', 'wonderful', 'leave', 'depart' etc. Teachers may guide them to read appropriate texts and give them practice for using suitable alternative words that are appropriate in expressing different situations and ideas.
- When students are asked to speak, they may refer to certain aspects of life peculiar to their own culture. Teachers need to allow this and gradually wean them away to more sequential and topic-centred style.

8.4 ROLE OF TEACHER

To change the parameters of teaching-learning relationship we need to reflect on the attitudes of teachers.

These are:

- Teachers need to understand that students have to be given ample opportunities to make use of oral language in the classroom. This will help them to remove their inhibitions and learn to be confident in using oral language to express themselves in various contexts.
- Teachers should encourage students to bring their ideas to the class and express them orally. In this respect, teachers have to be good and patient listeners and respond appropriately, thus encouraging them further. This is not to be left to the teacher of English only but all content-area teachers have to be actively involved in this task.
- Teachers need to be facilitators for the students to practise oral language in the context, and not usurp their role and continue with teacher talk.

8.5 STRATEGIES FOR DEVELOPING ORAL LANGUAGE

When students lack the ability to express themselves clearly, coherently and effectively through oral language, they are not able to take full advantage of participating in group discussions, seminars etc. Teachers can help to improve by adopting the following strategies.

8.5.1 ADAPTIVE ACTIVITIES TO INCLUDE AUTHENTIC TEXT

Authentic and original discussions pave the way for developing oral language competency. Students may be asked to keep notes with them and asked to present their ideas developing them from their notes, without resorting to reading the whole text. This type of activity in a group will reduce their dependence on the full text, and motivate them to speak from memory, by elaborating on the notes they have made.

8.5.2 USING ACTIVITIES THAT USE STRONG LANGUAGE

This can be done by pairing the students and encouraging them to ask and answer partner's questions. Partners may be regularly changed so that every time they have exposure to different styles, language, thought processes, logic etc.

The following methods may be adopted:

- **Interview Grid:** Each time students change partners, they should make their answers stronger, and reduce the number of times they look at notes.
- **Opinion Formation Cards:** Students are given a quotation from a text (before it is read). It includes supporting evidence for or against the point. Students share their quotations, and discuss with reasons and evidence.
- **Opinion Continuum:** After discussion with the partners, students share if they shifted their opinion from one side to another – giving logical reasons for the shift.

8.5.3 USING STRONG DISCUSSION PROMPTS

Discussion prompts that encourage evaluation can be used very effectively. Teacher may prompt the students to rank the evidence from the strongest to the weakest, or the most important to the least important. This will generate a lot of discussion among partners or in a group. When they argue their points – and even try to negotiate for their position – a lot of learning takes place.

8.5.4 GENERAL STRATEGIES

Teachers can:

- Include listening as a regular classroom activity;
- Guide students to read aloud and discuss texts;
- Help students to make connections to their reading through social interactions;
- Include sharing as an important classroom activity;
- Provide opportunities to students to talk on familiar topics;
- Have regular conversation with individual students.

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9 READING AND WRITING IN THE CONTENT AREAS

9.1 ROLE OF CONTENT TEACHERS

Most teachers tend to regard themselves as teachers of subject areas such as Physics, Chemistry, or History. Even English teachers – who are supposed to be responsible for development of reading and writing skills – define themselves as teachers of literature, and act accordingly.

They tend to assign students to write and re-write short reading and writing assignments, and that too, mainly from text books. They do not usually go beyond this. To remedy this situation, teachers need to be trained to provide effective vocabulary instruction in their subject areas. They should also learn how to encourage students to read and write in their specific subject areas.

Teachers of various content area subjects need to understand that:

- It is not the responsibility of English teachers alone to take care of literacy instruction.
- They need to collaborate with other subject teachers in order to discuss and devise ways to motivate students to do additional reading and writing in their content areas.

9.2 INTEGRATION OF READING AND WRITING IN CONTENT AREA

This can be achieved by implementing the following:

- Predicting
- Pre-reading and skimming
- Summarizing/paraphrasing
- Visualizing
- Using graphic tools
- Generating ideas
- Note making
- Writing across content areas:
 - Writing from sources
 - Producing information pieces
 - Producing explanatory pieces
- Conducting research based on:
 - Focused questions
 - Demonstrating understanding

9.3 STRATEGY FOR TEACHING READING AND WRITING ACROSS CONTENT AREAS

Students are taught strategies for reading and writing primarily in their language classrooms. They need to use these skills in content area classes like Biology, Social Studies, and Business Studies. They need to comprehend what they read and be able to write about it in several ways.

Content area teachers can use several methods to train students to do so.

9.3.1 THE PAR METHOD

The PAR (Prepare, Assist, Reflect) method is a three-step model that helps students before, during, and after reading – particularly in Science subjects.

- **Prepare (Before reading):** Teachers can ask the students to be ready for reading by filling out the prepare section of the chart. They may offer some leading questions such as:
 - What do you think you will learn today?
 - What do you already know about the topic?
 - What questions do you have?
 - Are you able to make any connections with this topic?During the preparation time students are asked to preview the text by skimming, and then activating their prior knowledge.
- **Assist (During reading):** Teachers can help students to make sense of what they read. They can:
 - Ask direct questions;
 - Ask inference questions;
 - Ask them to make notes.
- **Reflect (After reading):** Teachers can ask the students to:
 - Reflect on what they read;
 - Understand how it relates to prior learning;
 - Think what makes sense to them;
 - Discuss with a partner;
 - Write what they have learned.

9.3.2 THE KWL METHOD

Another strategy is to prepare a KWL (Knowledge, Wonder, Learn) chart. They can do so by:

- Writing what they know about the topic (knowledge) – teachers can use the brainstorming method for this;
- Wondering or wanting to know about the topic (wonder) - questions may be posed at this stage.
- Learning in detail about the topic.

9.4 COMPREHENSION STRATEGIES IN CONTENT AREAS

It is important that there are ongoing literacy development programmes for all students – particularly those in the middle and high school years. Teaching reading comprehension is vital at the secondary level. This should be the concern of teachers in every content area subject. Students may be exposed to a wide variety of expository texts. Not only the libraries but also the Internet could be a good source for a variety of reading material in different subjects. Teachers need to provide regular opportunities to students to practise under their guidance and supervision.

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Teachers can take the following steps to implement direct instruction:

- Set clear goals for students;
- Present well-organised assignments;
- Give clear instructions;
- Ensure they understand by asking questions;
- Guide them to make inferences;
- Guide them to make connections;
- Provide sufficient opportunities to practise.

9.4.1 COMPREHENSION STRATEGIES IN SOCIAL SCIENCE

Teachers can guide the students to follow these strategies:

- Summarizing;
- Developing subject-specific vocabulary;
- Comparing and contrasting;
- Providing guided reading.

9.4.2 COMBINING MATHEMATICAL CONCEPTS WITH COMPREHENSION

Teachers can combine mathematical concepts with comprehension by:

- Using mathematical language in the classroom;
- Incorporating visuals;
- Modelling thinking aloud;
- Having high expectations regarding students' performance.

9.4.3 EXPOSITORY WRITING IN SCIENCE

Students need guidance in:

- Breaking down the writing task;
- Developing topic sentences;
- Finding evidence to support ideas;
- Adding comments;
- Using appropriate voice (Active or Passive).

Teachers can guide the students for:

- Planning and developing their ideas;
- Drafting well-organised paragraphs;
- Revising and editing their written work.

10 TYPES AND NATURE OF TEXTS

Texts can be broadly classified in the following categories.

10.1 NARRATIVE TEXT

It is a story meant to entertain. It may take any of the following forms:

- Fictional
- Based on personal experiences
- Based on historical facts

However, the essential requirements for this stage are:



The image is a promotional graphic for BI Norwegian Business School. It features a central blue square with the white letters 'BI'. Radiating from this center are numerous colorful, 3D bar-like shapes in various colors (red, orange, yellow, green, blue, purple) that point outwards. Each bar has a label for a business program: 'Business', 'Strategic Marketing Management', 'International Business', 'Leadership & Organisational Psychology', 'Shipping Management', 'Financial Economics', and 'Business'. To the right of the graphic, the text 'Empowering People. Improving Business.' is written in a large, blue, sans-serif font. Below this, a paragraph describes the school as one of Europe's largest business schools, welcoming more than 20,000 students, and mentions its stimulating and multi-cultural learning environment. Further down, it states that BI offers four different two-year, full-time Master of Science (MSc) programmes taught entirely in English, designed to provide professional skills. A bulleted list follows, listing the four MSc programmes: MSc in Business, MSc in Financial Economics, MSc in Strategic Marketing Management, and MSc in Leadership and Organisational Psychology. At the bottom left is the BI Norwegian Business School logo, and at the bottom right is the EFMD EQUIS ACCREDITED logo. The website address 'www.bi.edu/master' is also present.

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- Alternating between different characters (optional);
- Combination of concrete and abstract language;
- A lot of personal pronouns;
- Simple structure – setting, plot, characters, conflict, resolution;
- Centred on a particular subject;
- Chronological order of events, flashback (optional).

10.2 EXPOSITORY TEXT

Expository texts are authentic as the authors provide accurate information on the subjects they write about. These texts use clear, focused language, and move from facts that are general to specific and abstract to concrete.

The most common structures of expository texts are:

- Cause-effect
- Comparison-contrast
- Definition-example, problem-solution
- Sequential listing

Expository texts do not have any room for fiction and descriptive literary tools. The style is concise and simple.

The most common examples are:

- Scientific articles
- Recipes, directions
- Biographies, history texts that follow definite chronology
- Texts based on pros versus cons structure
- Medical texts

10.3 TRANSACTIONAL TEXT

Transactional texts are message oriented. They require cohesive and accurate information.

10.3.1 TYPES OF TRANSACTIONAL TEXT

- **Ordering:** *"Shut down the computer and do your homework now"!*
- **Requesting:** *"I really wish you'd stop bothering me now".*
- **Promising:** *"I'll meet you tomorrow at nine".*
- **Threatening:** *"I'll tell Mom that you broke my mp3 player".*
- **Warning:** *"If you keep skipping the class, you'll definitely fail this subject".*
- **Complaining:** *"I've been here for 30 minutes and you just cut my queue".*
- **Refusing:** *"Sorry, I can't help you as I have my assignment due on Monday".*
- **Blaming:** *"You must be the one who broke it, you were alone at home today"!*

10.4 REFLECTIVE TEXT

Reflective text is an analytic practice. The writer describes any of the following and adding a personal reflection:

- Real or imaginary scene
- Event
- Interaction
- Passing thought
- Feeling
- Emotion
- Situation, etc.

Reflective text may be based on:

- Description and analysis of a learning experience in:
 - A community placement,
 - A clinical placement, or
 - A rural placement.
- Description and analysis of a past experience
- Description and analysis of a critical incident

10.5 STEPS TO RECOGNIZE TEXT STRUCTURE

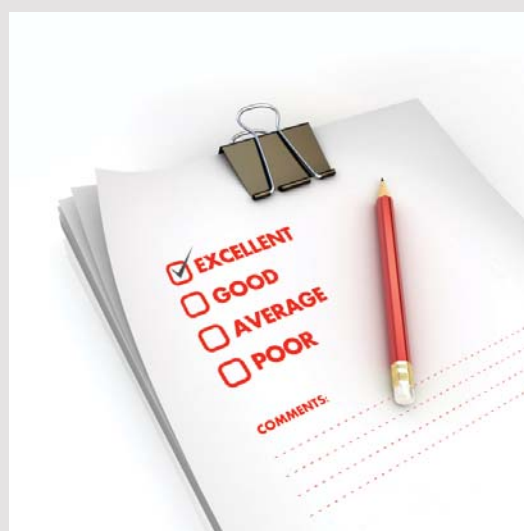
Teachers can guide the students to recognize various text structures in the following manner:

- Model reading with students through an assigned text and illustrating how to recognize this particular type of text.
- Provide students with a practice session advising them to utilise words for each structure pattern.
- Guide students to identify specific text structure and produce the same on their own.

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11 CONCEPT OF COMMUNICATION

11.1 INTRODUCTION

All of us use interpersonal communication skills when we use them at home with our families, at the workplace with our bosses and co-workers, on our computers when we answer emails, and over the telephone when we order pizza. In fact, communication is the lifeblood of social as well as business world.

11.2 MEANING OF COMMUNICATION

Communication is the process by which we give, receive or exchange information with others. Communication means interacting with others:

- To promote understanding;
- To achieve a result of some kind;
- To pass information to another person so that they can act.

It can involve speaking, listening or writing. This information does not necessarily need to be hard facts. Sometimes just a shrug of the shoulder can act as our means of communication.

11.3 PURPOSE OF COMMUNICATION

One might think we could all live quite happily without communicating at all, but no – we all need to communicate throughout our life. Communication is a fundamental part of human life. Even a new born baby crying to attract its mother's attention to the fact that it is hungry is communicating, usually very effectively! Since we spend a lot of our daily life communicating in one way or another, we should be very good at it, but unfortunately, this is not the case. Life would be a lot easier if we always knew exactly what others were trying to say. Quite often people fail to communicate in a way that you could understand. According to Ann Dobson (2000):

"Nowhere is effective communication more important than at work. Vital information needs to be given, received, exchanged and understood hundreds of times in every working day. Many business transactions go wrong simply because of poor communication between the people concerned".

When a person has an idea or thought which they want to communicate to the other person, they send the message through a carefully selected medium. They encode the message i.e. written, spoken, or through body language. The sender transmits this message to the receiver through an appropriate channel i.e. telephone, letter, memo, email, face-to-face, etc. When the receiver gets the message, they decode it and understand the message. They might provide feedback by acknowledging the message. In this reverse process, the receiver now becomes the sender and the sender becomes the receiver.

11.4 KEY ELEMENTS IN COMMUNICATION

There are three elements in the communication process. They are:

- You
- Your message
- Your audience

YOU bring professional experience, education and training to the communication process. You have earned credibility with your teachers, classmates, employees, employers, co-workers and colleagues.

To be an effective communicator, you need to know who your AUDIENCE is. If your audience is your classmates, you can talk effectively about your subject matter, your projects, your research work etc. If your audience is the highway crew, you can talk effectively about cracks, rutting, pavement deflection, caterpillars etc. The principles of effective interpersonal communication are the same whether your audience is one person, two people or one hundred.

The MESSAGE element is equally important. What do you want to say? What is the best way to communicate the message? There is a basic rule used by journalists for writing a newspaper story that can help you form your message. A well-written story should contain who, what, when, where, why and how of the story in the first paragraph or two. If it does not, it will not hold our attention.

The same principle applies to your message in the process of interpersonal communication. If you do not let your audience know quickly who, what, when, where, why and how of your message, you risk their losing interest, being inattentive, and not being able to understand the true and complete meaning of your message.

11.4.1 HOW WE GET AND USE INFORMATION

How much information we retain in the communication process depends on several factors. It is important for each of us to recognize how we learn best:

- Do we remember most of what we read?
- Do we remember most of what we hear?
- Do we learn more if someone shows us?
- Do we learn still more if we do it?

Typically, we retain information at these rates:

- 10 per cent of what we read
- 20 per cent of what we hear
- 30 per cent of what we see
- 50 per cent of what we see and hear
- 70 per cent of what we see and discuss
- 90 per cent of what we do

An advertisement for SKF. It features a woman with long dark hair smiling in the foreground. In the background, a large white wind turbine is visible against a blue sky. The text 'Brain power' is written in large white letters on the left. On the right, there is a block of text about wind energy and SKF's role. At the bottom left, there is a call to action to visit the SKF website. The SKF logo is in the bottom right corner.

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Another way to think about how we retain information is this adage:

Tell me and I will probably forget,

Show me and I might remember,

Involve me and I will learn.

11.5 CHARACTERISTICS OF EFFECTIVE COMMUNICATION

Effective messages have the following characteristics:

- Clear
- Complete
- Correct
- Create goodwill
- Persuade and recommend

11.6 SELECTING THE BEST METHOD OF CHANNEL

Obviously, there must be a method for transmitting the communication to the intended receiver(s). What methods need to be will depend on the nature of the communication, its urgency, where the sender and receiver are located, and so on.

There are a variety of channels of communication, although not all might be available to a particular sender:

- The most common channels are:
 - Oral
 - Written
 - Transmission by electronic means
- It is necessary to select the appropriate channel for a particular message.
- Communications containing figures or technical terms should be set down in writing or, if given orally initially, should be 'backed up' by written communication for further reference and avoidance of later dispute.

11.7 COMMUNICATION AND LAC

Students need to constantly communicate – with their teachers, classmates etc. While some students may be proficient in the use of language – which is the medium of instruction, English, in this instance – others may have a problem in communicating.

It is for the teachers of content area subjects to ensure that their students are not only well-trained in this aspect but are also provided ample opportunities to practise the language – both orally and in writing. Teachers need to encourage and motivate students to express themselves through the medium of instruction, and should help and guide them in its correct and appropriate use.

12 READING STRATEGIES

12.1 DEVELOPMENT OF READING IN CHILDREN

Students have to do a lot of reading across all subject areas, for example:

- **Reading in English class:**
 - Prose
 - Poetry
 - Drama
- **Other subjects:** material related to Science, Social Science and various other subjects.
- **Reading for pleasure:** novels, stories, poems, biographies etc.

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12.2 IMPORTANCE

Developing reading skills of students is of prime importance. Unless they develop reading habits – wide variety of textual material – they will not be in a position to study and comprehend any subject whatsoever. They need to be encouraged to read different types of texts in order to be able to absorb the information and knowledge contained therein. Effective reading skills lay the foundation of life-long learning.

12.3 TYPES OF READING

Students are involved in reading a lot of texts which are of different types. We may categorize them into two main categories:

- **Expository text:** involving information, analysis, thinking etc.
- **Narrative text:** story, narration of incident or accident or event.

There are a number of sub-categories such as literary, non-literary, fiction, non-fiction etc.

12.4 STRATEGIES FOR READING

Students need to adopt different strategies in order to do effective reading so that whatever they read they are able to comprehend and retain the information and knowledge provided in the text. We may broadly classify these strategies into the following:

- **Scanning:** Moving eyes from one side of the text to the other side without actually reading all the sentences, so that the significant clues can be obtained.
- **Skimming:** Quick reading without caring about the meanings of words and phrases.
- **Highlighting/Underlining:** Main idea as well as sub-idea(s) in a text.
- **Making notes:** On the text read – in points only.
- **Making an outline:** Of the text based on notes.
- **Summarizing the text:** Based on the outline.

12.4.1 SCANNING, SKIMMING AND RE-READING

It is difficult to absorb everything in one reading, particularly when the text is of a complex nature – either the subject is too difficult or too many significant points have been put together or there are far too many difficult or unfamiliar words and phrases.

It is therefore helpful if first reading is done fast without looking at the meanings of words or concepts. This skimming of the text usually gives a general idea of what the text contains. The second reading – re-reading – needs to be done slowly and carefully while trying to understand the underlying concepts or ideas. This is based on the fact that first we look at the overall picture and then see the details. For example, when you enter a room for the first time, you see the room as a whole – big, small, well-lighted, dark and gloomy etc. Then you look at the individual aspects – size, design and colour of furniture, photos or paintings on the wall, decoration items etc. Similar is the case about learning. We first see the whole picture and get an idea of the whole, and then we discern various individual aspects. The method of first skimming and re-reading helps comprehension and retention to a large extent.

12.4.2 HIGHLIGHTING / UNDERLINING

While re-reading a text, either highlight sentences or parts of sentences that have relevant points, or you may underline them. It depends on your own style which method you choose. This method helps you in two ways:

- First, you are able to concentrate on the main points later when you refer to the text; and
- Second, it helps you make notes using the highlighted or underlined parts.

This also helps in finding the correct and relevant points in answer to multiple-choice questions.

12.4.3 NOTE MAKING

Note making plays an important role in effective learning. When you read, you grasp some information. When you make notes of all the important points, you not only reinforce what you have read but also have material in the form of your notes to refer to at a later date. At that time, you necessarily do not have to read the whole text. Your exhaustive notes will help you recall the concepts and ideas.

12.4.4 MAKING OUTLINE

Outlining is the method of arranging ideas in an orderly manner in the order of importance. Outline can be made by using headings and sub-headings of a particular text. To distinguish one idea from another, use Roman numerals (I, II, III, IV etc.) or numbers (1,2,3,). You may also use bullet points for sub-headings or parts thereof. However, it is essential to maintain consistency in using the numbering system throughout failing which it will be difficult to understand later as to which the main part is and which is the secondary part.

After every point, leave some space for including any additional information you may come across later. A carefully planned and prepared outline can be a good source for revising or making a summary of the text.

Here is an example:



"I studied English for 16 years but...
...I finally learned to speak it in just six lessons"

Jane, Chinese architect

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TEXT

Marketing is a human activity to satisfy needs and wants, through an exchange process. A demand is a want for which the consumer is prepared to pay a price. A want is anything or service the consumer desires or seeks. Wants become demands when backed by purchasing power. A need is anything the consumer feels to keep himself alive and healthy. A transaction consists of a value between two parts. The aim of marketing is to make sales in order to earn reasonable profit for the producer.

Marketing is the creation and delivery of a standard of living; it is finding out what customers want, then planning and developing a product or service that will satisfy those wants; and then determining the best way to price, promote and distribute that product or service. The purpose of business is to create a customer by which stress is laid on two aspects: (a) identification of consumer needs, and (b) organising the business to meet these needs. The modern concept focuses on the consumers and their satisfaction. The approach of modern marketing is consumer-oriented instead of solely product-oriented.

OUTLINE

- I. Marketing is:
 - i. A human activity to satisfy wants;
 - ii. Works through an exchange process.
- II. Aim of marketing:
 - i. Finding out customer needs;
 - ii. Developing a product or service to fulfil these needs.
- III. Approach of modern marketing:
 - i. Mainly consumer-oriented;
 - ii. To deliver a standard of living.

12.4.5 SUMMARIZING

It means making a summary of a section of the chapter/unit you are trying to learn. While doing so you are bound to include the important points contained therein. In this process, you read, decide on the relevant information, and then you write. This reinforces the learning that might have taken place while reading.

Summarizing is not an alternative to note making. Note making has its own importance and cannot be sacrificed. Summarizing, in fact, further reinforces the notes you have made.

12.4.6 ELABORATIVE INTEGRATION

It is the process of asking yourself 'why' in an attempt to understand concepts. After you have read a couple of paragraphs, ask yourself questions related to the material. This ensures your understanding of the concept(s). To reinforce your understanding, you may even write down your questions and the answers you get.

12.4.7 SELF-EXPLANATION

Self-explanation is closely related to the method of elaborative integration. When doing it, write down the questions that you want to ask yourself, and then write down the answers. It lets you compare against the material as per its importance. This method is suitable for a wide variety of subjects and textual material.

12.4.8 TEST YOURSELF

This is one of the best methods to ensure that learning has taken place. Prepare a short test for yourself after each chapter/unit. It could be subjective type or multiple-choice. Mark your answers with the help of information in the text. You can choose to ask questions to yourself and answer orally, or you can write down the questions and then answer them. This helps in retaining the information you have learned.

12.4.9 CREATING A CHART

Creating a chart is another technique of note making, and it helps you keep your information organised. It requires that you draw separate columns for each element, and label them. Notes of information obtained from the text can be entered in these columns.

For example, if you are reading a text on marketing, and the author is trying to differentiate between marketing and selling – which are often erroneously considered to be synonymous but actually have different concepts – you can note the information in the following chart.

Selling	Marketing
1. Emphasises product.	1. Emphasises consumer wants.
2. Sales are the primary motive.	2. Satisfaction of the customer is primary.
3. First, production, then selling takes place at a profit.	3. First customer's need is known and then production takes place, then the product is sold at a profit.
4. Internal company orientation.	4. External market orientation.
5. Company's need is the motive.	5. Buyer's need is the motive.
6. Cost determines price.	6. Consumer determines price; price determines cost.
7. Selling views the customer as the last link.	7. Marketing views the customer as the very purpose of business.
8. It is an activity that converts the goods into cash.	8. It is a function that converts the consumer needs into products.



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13 WRITING STRATEGIES

13.1 INTRODUCTION

Writing well is just not an option for young people – it is a necessity. In school setting, writing plays two complementary roles:

- It is a skill that draws on the use of strategies such as planning, evaluating and revising text. It helps them to accomplish a variety of goals such as writing reports, expressing an opinion, or completing written assignments.
- It is a means of enhancing students' knowledge and acts as a tool for learning subject matter. Since these roles are closely linked, it works in the following ways:
 - Language teachers use content area texts to teach reading and writing skills; and
 - Content-area teachers provide instruction and practice in subject-specific reading and writing.

13.2 IMPORTANCE OF WRITING IN SCHOOL

Introducing and practising writing with engaging activities can foster confidence and a life-long love of writing. It helps them in various areas of development.

13.2.1 ACADEMIC DEVELOPMENT

Writing exercises in school support development of critical thinking skills and problem-solving skills, and they learn the writing process. They can be involved in the following activities:

- Planning and organising writing tasks;
- Doing peer collaboration;
- Writing about the world – also helps in building vocabulary.

13.2.2 EMOTIONAL DEVELOPMENT

Creative and reflective writing exercises build confidence and appreciation for writing. Through journals and story writing, students can discover their identities and work through real-life problems.

13.2.3 SOCIAL DEVELOPMENT

Writing helps the students to connect to the world around them. The writing process – done through peer collaboration and review – allows them to learn from each other. It also helps them to understand the value of constructive criticism. Collaborative writing projects such as class newspaper, wall magazine enables them to achieve goals together.

13.3 STRATEGIES FOR WRITING

13.3.1 SUMMARIZING

Students need to be taught and encouraged to practise summarizing the text they have read. It helps them not only to retain the material learned but also provides sufficient practice for enhancing their writing skills.

13.3.2 COLLABORATIVE WRITING

Students are encouraged to work together in order to plan, draft, revise and edit each other's writing. It helps them to improve the quality of their writing.

13.3.3 SENTENCE COMBINING

It involves teaching students to frame more complex sentences through exercises in which two or more sentences are combined into a single sentence.

13.3.4 SIGNPOSTING

Teachers need to emphasise the use of signposting language. It basically means that they need to use sentence connectors or linkers - e.g. although, moreover, however, in fact, etc. – so that language has a flow, which adds to its effectiveness.

13.3.5 PRE-WRITING

Pre-writing activities help the students to organise their ideas before they actually start writing. Some common pre-writing activities include the following:

- Encouraging group and individual planning before writing;
- Organising pre-writing ideas;
- Prompting students to plan after a brief demonstration by the teacher;
- Assigning reading material relevant to the topic; and
- Encouraging students to plan their work in advance.

13.3.6 INQUIRY ACTIVITIES

Teachers need to engage students in activities that help them get ideas for a particular writing task. Students can be trained and encouraged to do the following:

An advertisement for Gaiteye. The background is a warm, orange-toned image of a person running on a path. In the top left, the Gaiteye logo is displayed with the tagline 'Challenge the way we run'. Below the logo, the text 'EXPERIENCE THE POWER OF FULL ENGAGEMENT...' is written in bold, followed by a horizontal dotted line. Further down, the text 'RUN FASTER. RUN LONGER.. RUN EASIER...' is shown. To the right of this text, there are white technical diagrams consisting of circles and lines, resembling a gait analysis or motion capture diagram, overlaid on the runner's legs. In the bottom right corner, a yellow button contains the text 'READ MORE & PRE-ORDER TODAY' and 'WWW.GAITEYE.COM', with a hand cursor icon pointing at it.

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- Clearly specifying goals – describing the actions of people;
- Analysing concrete and immediate data – observing one or more peers during specific activities;
- Using specific strategies to conduct the analysis – asking the person being observed the reason for a particular action; and
- Applying what was learned – assigning the writing task incorporating inputs gained through the inquiry process.

13.3.7 PROCESS WRITING

Process writing involves various interrelated activities, including:

- Creating opportunities for writing;
- Writing for real audiences;
- Encouraging planning;
- Reviewing and revising;
- Facilitating student interactions; and
- Offering individual assistance.

13.3.8 PERSUASIVE WRITING

It is a form of writing through which the writer uses words and phrases to convince the reader about the validity and correctness of their ideas.

13.4 DIALOGUE WRITING / NARRATING PAST EVENTS

The objective here is to complete dialogue and narrate past events or incidents or stories.

There is a difference though between dialogue and narrative:

- A dialogue is a conversation between two or more people.
- A narrative is a third-person account of what has happened.

The writer of a dialogue has to dramatize the conversation by understanding the different characters being portrayed.

13.5 DIARY ENTRY

Diary is a type of personal document. It describes a person's account of a day of their life. The following format is usually followed:

- Top left – date, day and time
- Verb tense frequently used – Simple Past, Present Perfect and Future

Diary entry is made by taking the following steps:

- Begin the entry describing the day or momentary feelings.
- Discuss an event, your feelings towards it, and how it is likely to affect your future plans.
- Conclude with final remarks and future course of action.

13.6 STORY WRITING

There are no hard and fast rules for creating a good short story. However, the following need to be kept in mind:

- **Identify the heart of your story:** Decide what you want your story to do, and then stick to your main message.
- **Opposites attract:** Approach your main idea from an unusual direction. Keep the reader intrigued as to what is going to happen next.
- **Create a story title:** Let your friends read the story and get suggestions. Stay away from one or two-word titles. The title needs to be a catchy one in order to get the reader's attention.
- **Shorter is sweeter:** Keep the story short.

13.7 PARAGRAPH WRITING

A paragraph contains a number of sentences grouped together and relating to one topic or idea.

The following principles of paragraph structure need to be borne in mind:

- **Unity:** A paragraph must deal with one topic or idea.
- **Order:** There should be a logical sequence of thought or development of the subject.
- **Variety:** Monotony should be avoided in the use of words, phrases, and sentence linkers.

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